

Lesson 23

IMPLICATURE – I

Topic – 114 What Is Implicature?

The term “Implicature” accounts for what a speaker can imply, suggest or mean, as distinct from what the speaker literally says (Grice, 1975). Implicature - —any meaning conveyed indirectly or through hints, and understood implicitly without ever being explicitly stated (Grundy, 2000). It covers the family of verbs such as _imply, suggest, mean’, which refer to the meaning of an utterance as understood in a given context.

The fact that —what we literally say and what we clearly mean often differ is intuitively obvious but difficult to describe or explain systematically. It was the driving force behind Grice’s work. He was interested in developing a systematic explanation of how and why literal and intended meaning differs. Implicatures are context-dependent -

Generalized Implicature	Scalar Implicature	Particularized Conversational Implicature
In generalized conversational implicature - —no special background knowledge of the context of utterance is required in order to make the necessary inferences (Yule, 1996). It is a conversational implicature that is inferable without reference to a special context (glossary of English terms). One common example in English involves the expressions with the form an X, usually imply that X is not closely related to the speaker or subject, as in the following expression: John walked into a house yesterday and saw a tortoise. This expression implies that the house is not John’s house	A scalar implicature is a quantity implicature based on the use of an informationally weak term in an implicational scale. Scalar implicatures arise in examples e.g. _Some professors are famous’ where the speaker’s use of _some’ typically indicates that s/he had reasons not to use a more informative term, e.g. _all’. Some professors are famous, therefore, gives rise to the implicature that not all professors are famous. Similarly, in the utterance, _Some of the boys went to the party’, the word _some’ implicates "not all of the boys went to the party." Classic examples of scales include numerals (< ... three, two, one>), modals (<necessarily, possibly>, <must, should, may>), connectives (<and, or>), adverbs (<always, often, sometimes>), degree adjectives (<hot, warm>) and verbs of ranking (<know, believe>, <love, like>) or completion (<start, finish >).	Particularized conversational implicatures (PCIs) are the inferences which are worked out while drawing totally on the specific context of the utterance. Most of the time, our conversations take place in a very specific context in which locally recognized inferences are assumed (Yule, 2002). Consider an example: A: I’ m going to the prison tomorrow. B: Will 200 Dollars do? [context: A is visiting a prison and proposing to B to help in funding the shopping for that prison]

Lesson 24

IMPLICATURE – II

{ENG508 Short Notes from Lesson(23-43)}

Topic – 119 Properties of Conversational Implicature

Cancellability is one of the properties of conversational implicature. It is also known as defeasibility. Presence of a conversational implicature relies on a number of factors such as the conventional meaning of words used, the linguistic and situational contexts, etc. So if any of them changes, the implicature will also change.

Non-detachability - a conversational implicature is attached to the semantic content of what is said, not to the linguistic form i.e. it is possible to use a synonym and keep the implicature intact. It will not be detached from the utterance as a whole, even though the specific words may be changed.

Reinforceability - Implicatures can be reinforced, e.g. John answered most of the questions. But he wasn't able to answer the last question. (not redundant)

Non-conventionality - implicature is not carried by what is said, but only by the saying of what is said, or by _putting it that way.'

Calculability – speakers try to convey conversational implicatures and hearers are able to understand them suggests that implicatures are calculable.

Topic – 120 Conventional Implicature

Conventional implicature is not based on the cooperative principle or the maxims. They do not have to occur in a conversation. They do not depend on special contexts for their interpretation. However, they are associated with specific words that result in additional conveyed meanings when used. The English conjunction _but' is one of these words.

The interpretation of any utterance of the type _p but q' will be based on the conjunction _p & q' plus an implicature of _contrast' between the information in _p' and the information in _q'. Other English words such as _even' and _yet' also have conventional implicatures.

Topic – 121 Properties of Conventional Implicature

Non-truth-conditionality - conventional implicature do not make any contribution to truth conditions e.g. a) we want peace and they want war. b) we want peace but they want war. Both _a' and _b' shares the same truth conditions. Conventional implicature is associated with speaker or utterance rather than a sentence. Conventional implicatures are not derived from Grice's Cooperative principle and its component maxims but are attached by convention to a particular lexical item or linguistic construction. They are, therefore, an arbitrary part of the meaning, and must be learned _ad hoc'. Conventional implicatures are not calculable via any natural procedure but are rather given by convention, thus they must be stipulated. They are not cancelable i.e. they cannot be defeated. They are (arguably) detachable because they are depending on the particular linguistic items used.

Topic – 122 Strong Implicature

Strong implicature is a communicated implication of an utterance which is the main communicative point of the utterance. The idea is that sometimes a speaker intends that her hearer grasp a particular implication without which the utterance would not be relevant. Strong implicature is implicature that is related directly by the spoken utterances or is that premises and conclusions which the hearer is strongly encouraged but not actually forced to supply.

Topic – 123 Weak Implicature

Weak Implicature is a communicated implication of an utterance which is not by itself the main communicative point of the utterance. The idea is that for some utterances a hearer can understand what a speaker is trying to communicate even if he fails to get one or more implicatures. Weak implicature is the weaker the encouragement, and the wider the range of possibilities among which the hearer can choose, the weaker the implicatures. For example, John: What are you planning to do today? Mary: I'm tired.

Lesson 25: DEIXIS- I

Topic – 125 Spatial Deixis

Spatial deixis are used to indicate the relative location of people and things. Also known as 'place deixis'. Some pure place deictic words are: here and there (adverbs); this and that (demonstrative pronouns).

A deictic projection is accomplished via dramatic performance when we use direct speech to represent the person, location and feelings of someone or something else e.g. while visiting a pet store, says, I was looking at this little puppy in a cage with such a sad look on its face. It was like, 'oh, I am so unhappy here, will you set me free?' The 'here' of the cage is not the actual physical location of the person uttering the words, but the location of that person performing in the role of the puppy.

Topic – 126 Person Deixis

Person Deixis an expression used to point to a person (me, you, him, them) is an example of person deixis. Person deixis operates on a basic three part division, exemplified by the pronouns for first person (—I, me, mine), second person (you, your, yours), and third person (he, she, it). A speech event includes at least two persons: First person = speaker and Second person = addressee.

Topic – 127 Social Deixis

Social deixis is concerned with the codification of the social status of the speaker, addressee, or a third person or entity referred to as well as the social relationships holding between them (Levinson 1983; Fillmore 1997; Manning 2001). It may include social class, kin relationship, age, sex, profession, and ethnic group.

—The pronoun systems of some languages also grammaticalize the information about the social identities or relationships of the participants in the conversation, Levinson (1983) call this phenomenon a social deixis. Social deixis refers to expressions which clearly encode social meaning. —Address terms i.e. social status is indexicalized through the linguistic terms, for example, 'Madam', 'Sir', 'Professor', 'Doctor'.

Topic – 128 Temporal Deixis

Temporal deixis is also known as 'time deixis'. It is concerned with the encoding of the temporal points and spans relative to the time at which an utterance is produced in a speech act (Huang, 2014). It includes time adverbs e.g. now, then, soon, last week, today, tonight, yesterday, tomorrow, etc. 'Now' indicates both the time coinciding with speaker's utterance and the time of the speaker's voice being heard.

Lesson 26: DEIXIS- II

{ENG508 Short Notes from Lesson(23-43)}

Topic – 129 Discourse Deixis

Discourse deixis is also called text deixis. In discourse deixis, there are words that make reference to some statement or utterance to point to the current, preceding or following utterances in the same spoken or written discourse, e.g. ‘the next chapter’, ‘in the last paragraph’, etc. (Haung, 2014). There are many words and phrases, in English, that indicate the relationship between utterance and the prior discourse such as but, therefore, in conclusion, to the contrary, still, however, anyway, well, besides, actually, all in all, so, after all, etc.

Topic – 130 Deictic Reference

Deictic Reference is the use of gestures or other means of pointing to specify an ambiguous utterance, for instance, pointing at a place in a map and saying —here. This property of language is called ‘indexicality’, and the lexical items that encode context in the way are called ‘deictics’. Indexical: the role of context in helping to determine reference

Topic – 131 Deictic Center

Deictic Center is when we hear a deictic, we typically make a number of assumptions about the context. For instance, when we hear an utterance like ‘The postbox is on the left’ we have to decide whether the postbox is on the left in relation to the speaker or the hearer. The default deictic center is the speaker’s location at the time of utterance.

Topic – 132 The Limits of Indexicality

Fixedness of deictic center poses a particular problem when we want to quote what others have said to us. Imagine my son says to my daughter: (1) Why don’t you want to come to the park with me?

When she reports his utterance to me, she has a choice of several ways to represent this deictic property as: (2) Eddie said, why don’t you want to come to the park with me? (3) Eddie asked why I didn’t want to come to the park with him. (4) Eddie complained that I didn’t want to go to the park with him.

In (3) the deictic center is partly projected from Eddie’s original perspective – she encodes this projection in her use of ‘I’ and ‘him’ and ‘didn’t’ while her retention to ‘come’ is still faithful to the deictic center of Eddie’s utterance. Reported speech, like in (4), is important evidence of the existence of an unmarked deictic center, which as (1) and (4) show, is that of speaker’s perspective even when the speaker is representing the speech of another person.

The identification of this fixed center reveals an important pragmatic principle i.e. we are able to assume shared knowledge and to foreground what is new in each particular utterance so that what is new appears as a kind of figure in relation to the ground. Because of the role of assumed knowledge in determining reference, deictic referents are typically denotations with limited descriptive power.

Thus the pronouns ‘you’ and ‘me’ and ‘us’ are semantically empty tokens in the sense that they lack descriptive

Lesson 27

PRESUPPOSITION AND ENTAILMENT IN PRAGMATICS

Topic – 134 Introduction

{ENG508 Short Notes from Lesson(23-43)}

A presupposition is something the speaker assumes to be the case prior to making an utterance. Speakers, not sentences, have a presupposition. An entailment is something that logically follows from what is asserted in the utterance. Sentences, not speakers, have entailments. We can identify some of the potentially assumed information associated with the utterance as in 1) Mary's brother bought three horses.

Here, the speaker will normally be expected to have the presupposition that a person called Mary exists and that she has a brother. A more specific presupposition is that Mary has only one brother and he has a lot of money. All of these presuppositions are the speaker's and all of them can be wrong, in fact.

Whereas, the sentence in (1) will be treated as having the entailments that: Mary's brother bought something, bought three animals, bought three horses, and many other similar logical consequences. These entailments follow from the sentence, regardless of whether the speaker's beliefs are right or wrong, in fact.

Topic – 135 Types of Presupposition

- 1) **Existential Presupposition** is the assumption of the existence of the entities named by the speaker. They can be found in (i) Noun phrase, and (ii) Possessive constructions. For example, i) Noun phrase - —The car was broken— (Presupposes that the existence of the entity it refers to, in this case, is the —Car —). (ii) Possessive construction - e.g. "Tom's car is new" (we can presuppose that 'Tom' exists and that he has a car).
- 2) **Factive Presupposition** is the assumption that something is true due to the presence of some verbs such as "know", "realize" and "glad", etc.
- 3) **Non Factive Presupposition** refers to something that is not true.
- 4) **Lexical Presupposition** is an assumption that, in using one word, the speaker can act as another meaning (word).
- 5) **Structural Presupposition** - associated with the use of certain structures, e.g. Wh-question constructions. The listener perceives that the information presented is necessarily true, or intended to be true by the speaker.
- 6) **Counterfactual Presupposition** is an assumption that what is presupposed is not only untrue but is the opposite of what is true, or contrary to facts.

Topic – 137 Ordered Entailments

Crystal (1998: 136) defines entailment as "a term refers to a relation between a pair of sentences such that the truth of the second sentence necessarily follows from the truth of the first. For instance: I can see a dog. I can see an animal. Generally speaking, entailment is not a pragmatic concept, because it has nothing to do with the speaker's intended meaning.

It is considered a purely logical concept, symbolized by $\Rightarrow$. Examples of entailment for the [1] are presented below in [2]:

[1] Rover chased three squirrels. ($\Rightarrow p$)

[2] a. Something chased three squirrels. ($\Rightarrow q$)

b. Rover did something to three squirrels. ($\Rightarrow r$)

c. Rover chased three of something. ($\Rightarrow s$)

d. Something happened. ($\Rightarrow t$)

{ENG508 Short Notes from Lesson(23-43)}

In representing the relationship of entailment between [1] and [2a] as $p \text{ II- } q$, we have simply symbolized a logical sequence. Let us say that in uttering the sentence [1], the speaker is necessarily committed to the truth of a very large number of background entailments (some are presented in [2a-d]. On any occasion of utterance [1], however, the speaker will indicate how these entailments are to be ordered. That is, the speaker will communicate, typically by stress, which entailment is assumed to be in the foreground, or more important for interpreting intended meaning, than any others.

Topic – 138 Presupposition in the Real World

‘Anything’ is also less inviting for another reason that it is a negative polarity item which can only occur in negative or hypothetical constructions (conditionals, interrogatives, etc.). Because of the hypothetical context required by negative polarity ‘any’, during the road construction, we expect the road-sign as: ‘Sorry for any delay’ rather than the anomalous ‘sorry for some delay’.

Lesson 28: SPEECH ACTS THEORY

Topic – 139 Introduction to Speech Acts

Speech act theory is similar to physical acts. People also perform acts by using language – e.g. to give orders, to make requests, to give warnings or to give advice, etc.

Explicit performatives are performative utterances that contain a performative verb that makes explicit what kind of act is being performed and tend to begin with a first person singular ‘I’. Implicit performatives are performative utterances in which there is no such verb. Constatives – are the statements that attempt to describe reality and can be judged true or false.

Topic – 140 Austin’s Speech Act Theory

The work of J. L. Austin-How to Do Things with Words - led philosophers to pay more attention to the non-declarative uses of language. The terminology he introduced, especially the notions "locutionary act", "illocutionary act", and "perlocutionary act", occupied an important role in what was then to become the "study of speech acts". For instance, (1) I bet you six pence it will rain tomorrow. (2) I apologize. (3) I sentence you to ten years of hard labor. (4) I give my word.

These sentences are not used to describe some states of affairs, but to do certain things: to bet, to apologize, to pass sentence, and to promise, respectively. Facets of a speech act are Locutionary Act and Perlocutionary Act.

Topic – 141 Searle’s Speech Act Theory

Searle (1976), proposed that all acts fall into following five main types: Representatives commit the speakers to the truth of the expressed proposition – state what the speaker believes to be the case or not (e.g. asserting, concluding, statements of fact) ‘The earth is flat’. (statement of fact). Directives are attempts by the speaker to get the addressee to do something – what the speaker wants (requesting, questioning). Commissives commit the speaker to some future course of action – what s/he intends (promising, threatening, offering, refusing). Expressives express a psychological state or what a speaker feels (thanking, apologizing, welcoming, congratulating). Declarations effect immediate changes in the institutional state of affairs and which tend to rely on elaborate extra-linguistic institutions (marrying, declaring war, firing from employment). These speech acts change the world via their utterance.

{ENG508 Short Notes from Lesson(23-43)}

Topic – 142 Felicity Conditions

When the speaker promises to do something, there are two preparatory conditions: First, the event will not happen by itself. Second, the event will have a beneficial effect. When the speaker utters a warning, there are the following preparatory conditions: It is not clear that the hearer knows the event will occur. The speaker does think the event will occur. The event will not have a beneficial effect.

Topic – 143 Direct and Indirect Speech Acts

In everyday situations, we often do not directly express what we intend, but instead, formulate our utterances in ways which appear more polite to hearers. That utterance can be direct speech acts or indirect speech acts. For example: Pass me the salt! Can you pass me the salt?

Distinction between these speech acts is based on their structure. Whenever there is a direct relationship between a structure and a function, we have a direct speech act. Whenever there is an indirect relationship between a structure and a function, we have an indirect speech act. A declarative used to make a statement is a direct speech act, but used to make a request is an indirect speech act.

One of the most common types of indirect speech acts in English has the form of an interrogative. Examples of Direct Speech Act - when a specific sentence structure performs its direct function. _Did you eat the pizza?_ Interrogative – Question, _Eat the pizza_ (please)! Imperative – Command (Request). _You ate the pizza_ is Declarative – Statement

Lesson 29: SPEECH ACTS AND SOCIETY

Topic – 144 Social Dimensions

Indirect speech acts constitute one of many forms of politeness. Indirectness is so much associated with a politeness that directives are more often expressed as interrogatives than imperatives. This is especially the case with people with whom one is not familiar. In many British restaurants, book shops and petrol stations, a general sign says —thank you for not smoking!. The expressive thanking speech act is presumably used because it sounds more polite and friendly to all the strangers reading the sign than the impersonal directive prohibiting —No smoking!.

The other factors that can make speaker use indirect directives, in addition to lack of familiarity, are the reasonableness of the task, the formality of the context and social distance (difference of status, roles, age, gender, education, class, occupation, and ethnicity). Social distances can give speakers power and authority and it is generally those of the less dominant role and so on who tend to use indirectness.

Topic – 145 Cultural Dimensions

Speech acts and their linguistic realizations are culturally bound. The ways of expressing speech acts vary from country to country and from culture to culture. In India, for example, the expressive speech act of praising and congratulating a person on their appearance can be realized by the words such as: —How fat you are!! because the weight is an indicator of personality and health in a country where there is malnutrition.

{ENG508 Short Notes from Lesson(23-43)}

In Britain, these words express _deploring_ or _criticizing_, since the fashion and diet foods industries, and possibly health education have conditioned many into thinking that —slim is beautiful. Differences in speech acts can cause difficulties cross-culturally.

Topic – 147 Macro-Functions

Brown and Yule (1983) describe the _transactional_ functions and the _interactional_ function of language.

The „transactional“ is the function which language serves in the expression of content and the transmission of factual information. The „interactional“ is the function involved in expressing social relations and personal attitudes, showing solidarity and maintaining social cohesion.

At the extreme end of the interactional is „phatic communion“ - language with no information content used purely to keep channels of communication open. Brown and Yule pointed out that much of the everyday human interaction is characterized by the primary interpersonal rather than the primarily transactional use of language.

Lesson 30: POLITENESS THEORY

Topic – 149 What is Politeness Theory?

Politeness generally refers to the ideas like being tactful, modest and nice to other people. In pragmatics, politeness can be defined as _showing awareness and consideration of another person's face_ (Yule, 2010). —Politeness means having or showing good manners and respect for the feelings of others (Wehmeier 2000, p. 976).

Topic – 150 Face Wants

Face-threatening Act is if you say something that represents a threat to another person's self-image, that is called a face-threatening act, e.g. _Give me that paper_.

Face-saving Act gives the possibility that some action might be interpreted as a threat to another's face, the speaker can say something to lessen the possible threat, e.g. _Could you pass me that paper_ or _I'm dying for a drink. Yes, it's really hot. Isn't it?_ In situations where a face-threatening act (FTA) could arise, the politeness strategy used will depend largely on the relationship between the speaker and the listener.

FTAs are sometimes unavoidable in conversation; they can damage the face of the person spoken to because it opposes her wants or needs. An FTA can be either a positive or negative one and can damage the speaker or the hearer.

Positive face-threatening acts are a direct challenge to the face of the listener. They contain an indifference to the listener's self-image and include things such as threats, insults, and belittling the listener. Negative face-threatening acts occur when the speaker impinges on the listener's negative face. The speaker requires a verbal response or an action from the person s/he is addressing.

Topic – 152 Say Something: Off and On Record

- ❖ **Off record** is when you decide to say something, you simply produce statement such as: [a] Uh, I forgot my pen. [b] Hmm, I wonder where I put my pen. These type of statements are not directly addressed to the other and the other can act as if the statements have not even been heard by them. Such indirect statements

{ENG508 Short Notes from Lesson(23-43)}

are technically described as being off-record. They might be referred to as hints. Indirect statement involves the speaker requesting something without directly asking the listener to do it. The approach is more deferential and places the burden on the speaker. For example, a speaker might comment on something that needs to be done rather than asking the listener to do it directly.

- ❖ **Bald on-record** – where you can directly address the other as a means of expressing your needs. The most direct approach, using imperative forms is known as bald on record. For instance, a person is directly asked: [a] Give me a pen. [b] Lend me your pen. Bald on record forms may be followed by expressions like please and would you? which serve to soften the demand and called mitigating devices.

Generally speaking, bald on record expressions are associated with speech events where the speaker assumes that he or she has power over the other (e.g. in military contexts) and can control the other's behavior with words.

Topic – 153 Positive and Negative Politeness

- ❖ **A positive politeness** strategy leads the requester to appeal to a common goal, even friendship, via expressions such as: [a] How about letting me use your pen? [b] Hey, buddy, I'd appreciate it if you'd let me use your pen. These expressions do represent a greater risk for the refusal. It may be preceded by some getting to know you talk, designed to establish the necessary common ground for this strategy.
- ❖ **Negative politeness** is also used when speakers know they are impinging on a person's time and want to show respect. For example, stopping a person on the street for instance, to ask for directions requires negative politeness.

Topic – 154 Politeness Strategies

Solidarity strategy is the tendency to use positive politeness, emphasizing closeness between the speaker and the hearer. It will include personal information, use of nicknames, sometimes even abusive terms (particularly among males), and shared dialect or slang expressions. A solidarity strategy will be marked via inclusive terms such as we and let's, for example in the party invitation as in: Come on, let's go to the party. Everyone will be there. We'll have fun.

Deference strategy is the tendency to use negative politeness forms, emphasizing the hearer's right to freedom. A deference strategy is involved in what is called formal politeness. It is impersonal, as if nothing is shared, and can include expressions that refer to neither the speaker nor the hearer e.g. Customers may not smoke here, sir.

The language associated with this strategy emphasizes the speaker's and hearer's independence. This independence is marked via an absence of personal claims, as in an alternative version of the party invitation: There's going to be a party if you can make it. It will be fun. These general types of strategies are illustrated here via utterances which are actually central to the speech event (e.g. invitation).

Lesson 31: POLITENESS AND CONTEXT

Topic – 156 Situational Context

To Heritage (1984), a speaker's action is context-shaped in that its contribution to an ongoing sequence of actions cannot be understood except by reference to the context. This contextualization of utterances is a major and unavoidable procedure which hearers use to rely on to interpret conversational contributions.

{ENG508 Short Notes from Lesson(23-43)}

Topic – 157 Social Context

The degree of familiarity is that speakers know each other, do not need to use politeness strategies; if they use them, it can imply quite opposite of politeness. It is those of the lower status, the less dominant role and so on who use more indirectness and more negative politeness features, such as hedges and mitigation, than those with higher status and so on do.

Topic – 159 Applying Politeness

If the strategies presented do not appear appropriately contextualized it may be difficult to know how to use them. If a context is provided the learner has a better idea of how and when to use them, for example: To find out different pragmatic parameters involved behind all these pragmatic choices; write, the answers to these questions: [1] Where are the people?], [2] What is the relationship between them?]

Lesson 32

CONVERSATIONAL ANALYSIS

Topic – 160 What Is Conversational Analysis?

Features of conversational analysis include, turn-taking, pauses, overlaps and backchannels, adjacency pairs, preference structures, and sequences expansion.

Topic – 161 Turn-Taking

Turn-taking operates in accordance with a local management system that is conventionally known by the members of a social group. This system is essentially a set of conventions for getting turns, keeping them, or giving them away; it is needed most at those points where there is a possible change in who has the turn. Turn-taking can be applied to conversations where speakers cooperate and share the floor equally. Also be applied to conversations where there is competition, fighting to keep the floor and preventing others from getting it.

Topic – 163 Adjacency Pairs

_A sequence of two related utterances by two different speakers' is known as adjacency pairs. The second utterance is always a response to the first. For instance: [A: You left the light on.], [B: It wasn't me!], [the sequence of complaint-denial = is an adjacency pair].

Types of Adjacency pairs are question-answer, greeting-greeting, Invitation or offer/acceptance/non-acceptance, complaint-apology/denial, summons-response, request-acceptance, promise or thanks-acknowledgement, and goodbye-goodbye.

Topic – 164 Preference Structure

Adjacency pairs represent social actions, and not all social actions are equal when they occur as second parts of some pairs, for example, [a question], [a partial answer], [a statement of ignorance], [a denial of the relevance of the question.], [a denial of its presupposition.]. For instance: [What does Joe do for a living?], [Do you need to know?], [Oh, this and that.], [I've no idea.], [What's that got to do with it?], [He does not do anything.]

A first part that contains a request or an offer has an expectation that the second part will be an acceptance; structurally more likely than refusal. This structural likelihood is called preference. Technically, preference is an

{ENG508 Short Notes from Lesson(23-43)}

observed pattern in talk and not a personal wish. Preference structure divides second parts into preferred (structurally expected next act) and dis-preferred (structurally unexpected next act) social acts.

Topic – 165 Sequences

Pre-sequences are the opening sequences that are used to set up some specific potential actions. Conversations are opened in socially recognized ways. In the beginning of the conversation speakers normally greet each other, e.g. when two office workers meet in the morning: Ali: [Morning, Salman!], Salman: [Hi. How's it going?], Ali: [Oh, can't complain, I guess. Ready for the meeting this afternoon?], Salman: [Well, I don't have much choice!]

Greetings exemplify opening sequences, utterances that ease people into a conversation. They convey the message—I want to talk to you. There are pre-invitations (I've got two tickets for the football match), pre-requests (are you busy right now?) and pre-announcements (You'll never guess!).

Finally, there are opening structures and closing structures; e.g. Iqra, a 34-year old housewife greets Laiba, a 15-year-old student, with a formulaic health enquiry: Iqra: [Hi. Laiba.], Laiba: [Hi, Hi, Iqra.], Iqra: [Hi, hi, how are you?], Laiba: [Not bad. I'll be in, in a minute.].

Lesson 33: CULTURE AND LANGUAGE LEARNING

Topic – 166 Cross-cultural Pragmatics

CCP investigates how human behavior is translated into instances of language in use. Research has shown that a speaker's intended meaning, mediated by linguistic symbols, may be interpreted or misinterpreted in cross-cultural contexts due to each interactant's own norms of interpretation. CCP examines behaviors that are manifest or overt and others that are latent or covert. The values and beliefs are embedded in talk both at the micro and the macro level. Micro features include prosodic cues, turn taking, indirectness, nonverbal cues, etc.

Topic – 167 Intercultural Pragmatics

Intercultural pragmatics is based on the socio-cognitive approach according to which, our mind exists simultaneously both in the head and in the world. Cross-cultural comparative studies of discourse have shown that rules of appropriateness vary across cultures. Thus, for learners to become truly effective communicators in a second language, they need to acquire these rules of appropriateness in addition to what we have come to call linguistic competence.

Modern language courses include elements of 'communicative competence' (Hymes, 1964); providing them with knowledge about and experience in using the sociocultural rules of the new language. Intercultural pragmatics studies speech acts across various cultures to study how language is manifested in a society and is a medium of differentiation between different cultures. The difference in culture causes a number of intercultural failures such as socio-pragmatic failure and pragma-linguistic failure.

Topic – 168 Inter-language Pragmatics

Interlanguage pragmatics focuses on the pragmatic development of second/ foreign languages learners as they seek to become proficient, successful users of the target language. ILP may be considered a sub-area of second language acquisition (SLA) and thus is inherently anchored in acquisition contexts. Learners and teachers need to understand

{ENG508 Short Notes from Lesson(23-43)}

interlanguage pragmatics (ILP) to facilitate our understanding of how people comprehend and communicate meaning beyond what is said in the target language.

The interlanguage is a reduced system at the early stages of development. Interlanguage refers to intermediate, dynamic, and transient linguistic systems that, according to the theory, continue to develop over time as learners move closer and closer to attaining native-like proficiency. Learners progress along a trajectory towards their desired goal, sometimes regressing and sometimes making rapid progress. For instance, in academic speaking skills, the learners may struggle with conversational chat unless they live with a native speaker.

Lesson 34

COMPUTER SEMANTICS AND PRAGMATICS

Topic – 171 Computers and Linguistics

Computer-Assisted Language Learning (CALL) is defined as —the search for and study of applications of the computer in language teaching and learning. (Levy, 1997: 1). CALL covers a broad range of activities which makes it difficult to describe it as a single idea or simple research agenda. CALL has come to encompass issues of materials design, technologies, pedagogical theories and modes of instruction.

Computational Linguistics on the other hand, is the study of language from a computational perspective. CL is concerned with the study of computer systems for understanding and generating natural language (Grisham, 1986). The process of dictionary making today is undergoing dramatic change. It is largely owing to advances in computers and the availability of machine-readable collections of texts known as corpora.

Corpus linguistics is the term used for compiling collections of texts and using them to probe language use. In this context, a corpus is a representative body of texts (corpus is the Latin word for ‘body’). More recent corpora contain over 100 million words, and corpora of texts in many languages are being compiled. It is also very essential for twenty-first-century dictionary making and in many other ways, including speech recognition and artificial intelligence.

Topic – 173 Computers and the Study of Translation

For more than half a century researchers have been trying to craft devices that can translate between languages. Except in limited ways, however, that goal has eluded even the best attempts thus far. Word-for-word translation does not do the trick because, for one thing, languages differ in their word orders and, for another, the metaphors of one language may not translate into the relevant metaphor of another language.

If a **machine translation (MT)** device were established for even six languages, then $6 \times 5 = 30$ sets of procedures would be needed to translate each language into all of the other five. It is an alternative system -an interlingual translation model - in which the basic semantic elements of each language can be represented abstractly and then encoded into other languages. This would require twelve procedures - one decoding procedure and one encoding procedure for each of the six languages. This model is simpler than the transfer translation model that requires 30 procedures.

Unfortunately, we don’t know the extent to which sentences can be decomposed into the kinds of abstract semantic representations needed for an interlingual model, especially in making a language-neutral intermediate representation. Difficulties related to translation in either model concern what one language encodes that another may not encode.

{ENG508 Short Notes from Lesson(23-43)}

Topic – 174 Computers and Pragmatics

As compared to morphological, lexical, phonological, grammatical, and semantic features of texts, the features of pragmatics have been less well explored in computational linguistics.

One reason for the relative neglect of pragmatics is that modeling the world knowledge and discourse knowledge that speakers rely on when producing and understanding texts is even more challenging than creating models of structural aspects of language. Another is that the kinds of linguistic features by which some pragmatic categories are realized are not always expressed in ways that computers can readily track. We have seen, speakers base some aspects of expression on their beliefs about what addressees know and are thought to have in the forefront of their minds.

Lesson 35

INFORMATION STRUCTURE AND PRAGMATICS

Topic – 178 Topics and Contrast

The notion of the topic is contrasted with the notion of comment, which is the element of a sentence that says something about the topic. Given information in the sentence about which we say something, called the topic; new information shows what we say about the topic, called the comment. For example, if ‘_Hassan ate the biscuits’ is offered in answer to the question ‘_What did Hassan do?’ The topic would be ‘_Hassan’ (given information) and the comment would be ‘_ate the biscuits’ (new information).

Topic – 179 Definite and Referential Expressions

Proper nouns and pronouns are generally definite. Pronouns such as ‘_you’ and ‘_we’ usually refer to individuals who are identifiable in the discourse context. Definiteness in English is marked by the choice of articles (definite the versus indefinite _a’) or by demonstratives (this and that, both definite). Indefinite noun phrases in English are marked by a or an (a furnace, an apartment building) or by the absence of any article (oil, fire, apartment buildings).

Topic – 180 Generic and Specific Expressions

In the first example, the ‘_bombardier beetle’ is generic because it refers to the set of all bombardier beetle; but in the second, which could have been uttered during a visit to a zoo, ‘_the giraffe’ refers to a particular animal and is, thus, specific. In the first sentence, the bombardier beetle is generic and definite, while a lethal mixture is generic and indefinite. In the second sentence, the giraffe is specific and definite, and a carrot is specific and indefinite. Thus, the generic/ specific contrast differs from the definite/indefinite contrast.

Lesson 36: RESEARCH IN PRAGMATICS

Topic – 181 The Nature of Pragmatic Investigation

We can imagine investigable topics that might be turned into testable hypotheses, such as family members show that they are displeased with one another by responding to propositional content rather than the illocutionary force of each other’s utterances, treating indirect speech acts as though they were direct speech acts. For example, the case of

{ENG508 Short Notes from Lesson(23-43)}

two-years old to a series of direct and indirect requests. The research method here involves following procedures: Frame a testable hypothesis suggested by some observation about the way that world appears to work.

Here are the steps to investigate (1) designing an experiment that enables you to collect data which test this hypothesis, (ii) collecting the data under experimental conditions, (iii) quantifying the data in order to determine whether or not the hypothesis is proved, and (iv) considering the implications of the findings and whether follow-up experiments would be useful.

Topic – 182 Collecting Data for Pragmatic Analysis

You may be collecting your data because you wish to test a hypothesis. Data will usually be elicited: by designing the experiments very carefully to make sure that you are collecting data that enable you to measure what you seek to measure rather than some other phenomenon.

This means that all the non-relevant variables need to be eliminated. It wouldn't be very useful; for example, if a linguist measured two years old responses to indirect requests only to realize afterwards that the results reflected the extent to which the requests themselves were palatable. There are some '_dos' and '_don'ts' when it comes to data collection.

Similarly, if you tell your friends to have a natural conversation while you record it on tape, you will get anything but a natural conversation. However, there is an ethical issue (i.e. not to use the data provided by the informants without their consent).

Topic – 183 Transcription of Conversation

Conventional transcriptions of conversations use a standard orthographic script rather than phonemic transcription. They show how items e.g. '_and' and '_your' are actually spoken since their realization may vary in obvious ways. You might expect to indicate hesitations e.g. '_er' and '_umm'. Other fillers and uptake signals e.g. '_uh-uh' and '_yeah' and audible breathing (hh) and indrawn breath (hh) can be indicated.

Lesson 37

KEY TERMS IN PRAGMATICS

Topic – 186 Ambiguity, Disambiguation and Vagueness

Ambiguity is a sequence of linguistic signs (written, spoken or signed) is ambiguous if and only if it is assigned more than one meaning by the grammar. In other words, ambiguous expressions are expressions that have more than one meaning in the language. Types of Ambiguity are: Structural ambiguity is due to the syntactic structure of the utterance, as in: They are fighting fish (Nicholas Allott, 1988). Lexical ambiguity that occurs when one form corresponds to more than one words with different meanings, like '_bank' in I pass the bank on the way to work.

Disambiguation is the process of selecting the intended sense of an ambiguous word, phrase or sentence from among the senses allowed by the grammar. Disambiguation is largely unconscious and automatic, and most of the ambiguity, therefore goes unnoticed by the speaker or the hearer.

Vagueness is a vague meaning is one that is not clearly defined. Much attention has focused on vague predicates. For example, it has been argued that the predicate bald is vague. If someone says '_John is bald' we may not know whether the proposition expressed by the utterance is true or false, even though we know all the relevant facts.

{ENG508 Short Notes from Lesson(23-43)}

Topic – 187 Attributive Concept and Argumentation Theory/Referential/Attributive Distinction

In **relevance theory**, attributive use of a concept is where a word or phrase is used to express a concept that a speaker attributes to someone else and which she need not endorse herself. A concept used in this way is sometimes called an attributive concept. Attributive use is a type of interpretive use: specifically, it is interpretive use in which there is attribution of a thought or utterance to another. For example, ‘An amazing thought entered into my brain’, Amazing is an attribute of thought.

Argumentation Theory: The systematic study of discourse that is intended to persuade rationally, including the study of logical arguments and fallacies and their uses. Argumentation theory is a sub-field of pragmatics since persuading by the use of arguments is one use of language, i.e. Media communication. Argumentation theorists also investigate normative as well as descriptive aspects of language use.

Referential /Attributive Distinction is a distinction between two apparently different ways of using definite descriptions, made by the philosopher Keith Donnellan (Allott, 1988). One way of using a definite description is to talk about whichever individual (or individuals, for plural definite descriptions) satisfies the material in the nominal restrictor. This is the attributive use. Another way of using a definite description is to pick out and talk about a certain individual (or individuals, for plural definite descriptions).

Topic – 188 Code Model

Code Model is a model of communication according to which communication involves the transmission of meaning – the message – by encoding it in language or some other codes. The transmitter encodes and transmits the message as a linguistic signal, which the receiver then decodes.

According to the model, a coding/decoding process will lead to perfect transmission of the message if the code is shared, encoding and decoding are carried out successfully, and the signal is not degraded by noise or interrupted (Allott, 1988). The terms message, signal, transmitter and receiver are from information theory. For example, A speaker says ‘Tree’. The hearer would encode it into ‘Stem, branches, leaves and other parts of a tree’. Encoding can also be on the sentence level.

Topic – 189 Communicative Competence

Communicative Competence is the ability to communicate in a language. It includes competence with the grammatical forms of the language and the ability to put forms of the language to use in communication (Allott, 1988). This term was invented by the anthropologist and sociolinguist Dell Hymes.

Topic – 190 Demonstrative

A group of indexical words or phrases that are used to refer, include this, that, these and those (in English). These words are used to make demonstrative phrases, for example, this pen, that car, these keys, those penguins (Allott, 1988). Demonstratives are often accompanied by a gesture that demonstrates the object referred to, pointing, or gazing at the object, i.e. ‘that boy’.

As with other indexical, the referent of a demonstrative must be worked out to know what proposition the speaker is expressing. The particular demonstrative used restricts the search for referents, in subtle ways. If there is one book on a table the speaker may refer to it with ‘this book’ or ‘that book’,

But if it is the nearer of two, then ‘this book’ is preferred, except if both books are nearer the hearer, when again ‘that book’ is acceptable. In English and other languages, the demonstratives encode a two-way proximal/distal

distinction, but other languages have a three way or four-way distinction. For space deixis, demonstratives are frequently used for discourse deixis, as in: —I am glad you told me that! and —This is what I'll be talking about today!.

Lesson 39

KEY TERMS IN PRAGMATICS-II

Topic – 192 Folk Pragmatics

The term 'folk pragmatics' is modeled on folk physics are pre-theoretical expectations about heat, light, how objects move, etc. (Allott, 1988). Folk psychology is pre-theoretical expectations about how behavior relates to thoughts and aims.

One source of evidence about folk beliefs is how we talk about the domain in question. Ordinary language is rich with words to talk about communication, including: topic, interruption, say, means, i.e. 'Did you mean that?'

The vocabulary available for talking about communication differs somewhat from language to language. For example, positive feedback to a conversational partner through short words or encouraging noises is important in conversation, across languages and cultures. Systematic investigation sometimes begins with folk words and transforms them to technical terms.

Topic – 193 „Formal“ and „Experimental Pragmatics“

Formal Pragmatics is the study of pragmatic phenomena using techniques and notations from logic and mathematics. Formal pragmatics is largely an extension from formal, model-theoretic semantics into the domain of more context sensitive elements of speaker meaning (Allott, 1988).

Formal pragmatics and dynamic approaches to semantics such as Discourse Representation Theory are closely related to date, work in formal pragmatics has only been concerned with a subset of pragmatic topics (Allott, 1988). The topics on the semantic-pragmatics interface, include definiteness and indefiniteness, presupposition, scalar implicature, conventional implicature, and focus.

Formal pragmatics serves two important functions in Habermas's philosophy. (Philosophymasters.com). First, it is the theoretical underpinning of the theory of communicative action, this being a crucial element of his theory of society. Second, it contributes to ongoing philosophical discussions regarding truth, meaning, rationality and action. (Philosophymasters.com).

In Experimental Pragmatics, the application of experimental techniques largely forms psycholinguistics to the areas of interest in pragmatics. Techniques used include on-line measures and off-line measures. On-line measures contain eye-tracking and timed responses to stimuli and off-line measures such as the choice from a set of candidates of the best sentence to describe a scene. Experimental pragmatics is a very recent development, although existing psycholinguistic work on disambiguation, semantic illusions and other aspects of interpretation is relevant (Allott, 1988).

Topic – 194 Cognitive Pragmatics

According to Bruno G. Bara (2010), Cognitive pragmatics focuses on the mental states and, to some extent, the mental correlates of the participants of a conversation. The mental processes of human communication are based on

{ENG508 Short Notes from Lesson(23-43)}

three fundamental concepts: cooperation, sharedness, and communicative intention. These three fundamentals were proposed by Grice in 1975, though each has since been refined by other scholars.

The cooperative nature of communication is justified by the evolutionary perspective through which the cooperative reasoning underlying a conversation is explained. Sharedness accounts for the possibility of comprehending non-standard communication such as deceit, irony, and figurative language (Bruno G. Bara, 2010).

According to Nicholas Allott (1988), the role of language is to allow the communication of thoughts. For cognitive linguists, language and the way we think are not to be artificially separated, and the study of language is expected to yield insights into cognition in general: 'language is a window into the mind' (Fauconnier).

Topic – 195 Fragment

Linguistic material that is less than a complete sentence is called a fragment. Many utterances are fragments. For example: [- Over here!], [- Water!], [- On the second shelf down, behind the jam. - Nice one!], [- A: How many cats do you have?], [- B: Five.].

Fragments are generally, although not always, linguistic constituents: preposition phrases, noun phrases and so on. Uttering a non-constituent is usually strange: [* shelf down * cats do you]

Fragments can be used to express complete propositions (Allott, 1988). For example, a speaker uttering —On the top shelf might mean: The jar is on the top shelf. Or [Where are you going?] Answer can be —to school'. [Did you eat something?] the answer can be —ate nothing'. It is controversial whether fragments are sometimes or never syntactically elliptical. Example: Are you writing something? —a letter to my friend.

Topic – 196 Metaphor and Synecdoche

Metaphor is a type of figurative speech. Typically, a metaphor ascribes to an entity a property that it does not, strictly and literally speaking, possess, although not all metaphors fit this definition. Metaphors are not restricted to any particular type of word or phrase (Allott, 1988). The metaphorical element of a sentence can be a noun phrase, as in 'John is an iceberg.' Verbs can also be used metaphorically, as in 'Flintoff drilled the ball to the boundary.'

Synecdoche is a figure of speech in which an expression that denotes the part of something is used to refer to the whole. For example, 'mouth' in 'I've got six hungry mouths to feed'. For example: 'willow' for cricket bat in such phrases as 'to wield the willow' (Allott, 1988).

Topic – 197 Hyperbole and Irony

Hyperbole is a figure of speech also known as an overstatement, in which a speaker expresses an exaggerated meaning than his words carry in themselves. Intuitively, this is a very common figure of speech. People often say 'I am starving' when they mean that they are merely rather hungry. 'It's miles and miles' is a common way of complaining about even quite short distances. On a Gricean analysis, hyperbole is a blatant violation of the first maxim of quality. For example, the speaker is not literally starving. Or in the second example, the destination might be in the next street but the speaker is just trying to exaggerate.

Irony is a figure of speech seen in the following example: Alistair (stepping out into heavy rain): Another lovely day! The classical conception of irony is that it is a figure of speech in which the speaker means the opposite of what her words mean, and this has been taken as defining. However, this condition is neither necessary nor sufficient for irony. For example, someone sees a car with a broken window and, attempting to draw attention to it in an ironic way says, 'Look! That car hasn't got a broken window' (Allott, 1988).

Lesson 39: KEY TERMS IN PRAGMATICS-III

Topic – 198 I-Principle and M-Principle

In **neo-Gricean** pragmatics, the I principle or Informativeness-principle is one of a small number of principles that govern communicative behaviour. The **I-principle** enjoins speakers to say as little as necessary (while bearing in mind the opposing Q- principle). If a speaker's utterance appears to be governed by the I-principle, then the hearer can take it that the speaker expressed herself economically.

In neo-Gricean pragmatics, the **M-principle** or Manner principle is one of a small number of heuristics governing communicative behaviour. A brief formulation of the M-principle in terms of instructions to speaker and hearer is as follows: Speaker: Do not say things in an abnormal way without reason. Addressee: What is said in an abnormal way indicates an abnormal situation.

Topic – 199 Q-Principle and R-Principle

In neo-Gricean pragmatics, the Q principle or Quantity Principle is one of a small number of principles thought to govern communicative behaviour and the production of implicatures. Q-principle is: Make your contribution sufficient; Say as much as you can (Given R).

The **Q-principle** is intended to subsume Grice's first maxim of quantity and his first and second manner maxims. The Q-principle enjoins the speaker to maximize the amount of information encoded. It is, therefore, described as a lower-bounding principle, and is postulated to be what is responsible for implicatures.

In Neo-Gricean pragmatics, the R principle or 'Relation-principle' is one of the small set of principles which govern communicative behaviour. On one formulation, the R-principle is: Make your contribution necessary; Say no more than you must (given the Q-principle). The R-principle enjoins the speaker to minimize the amount of linguistic material uttered, or more generally to minimize the effort involved in speech. It is, therefore, described as an 'upper-bounding' principle.

Topic – 203 Prosody and Tautology

Prosody is a variation in the rhythm, stress, and intonation of speech at the level of utterances, rather than at the lexical level. The interaction of prosody with syntactic structure, and the effect that prosody has on the interpretation of utterances are not well understood in general. For example, the difference in stress between 'REcord' (the noun) and 'reCORD' (the verb) is not a prosodic difference. But the difference in stress positions in the following examples is prosodic: Alice eats GRASS. Alice EATS grass.

Tautology is a statement that expresses a proposition that is necessarily true is called a tautology. For example: [2 + 2 = 4], [War is war.], [If it rains, it rains.]. Since tautologies are necessarily true, it is hard to see how uttering one can be informative, relevant or cooperative. Yet people do utter tautologies and are understood.

Lesson 40: KEY THINKERS IN PRAGMATICS

{ENG508 Short Notes from Lesson(23-43)}

Topic – 205 Noam Avram Chomsky

Most of Chomsky's work within linguistics is directed towards understanding the organizing principles of grammar which underlie such facts, with an emphasis on explaining rather than simply cataloguing and describing.

Generative Grammar is also a term introduced by Noam Chomsky. This work on the nature and acquisition of grammar has to be supplemented with an account of the acquisition of individual lexical items. Such as the word 'cat' somehow links the speech sounds /kæt/ to a certain concept.

Chomsky describes Descartes' view of language use, which he shares, as follows: 'Normal human speech is unbounded, free of stimulus control, coherent and in the same way – what we might call the creative aspect of language use.' appropriate, evoking thoughts that the listener might have expressed. He thinks; pragmatics, systematic study of the use of language, is pointless or impossible.

Topic – 206 Herbert Paul Grice

Of all thinkers – linguists and philosophers – it is Grice who has had the greatest influence on the development of pragmatics. Two connected parts of Grice's work have been profoundly influential in the field: his theory of meaning and his theory of conversation. Grice introduces his distinction between natural and non-natural meaning by way of a bit of 'linguistic botanizing' (as he later described this characteristic move of the ordinary language style).

He notes that the words 'mean' and 'meaning' can be used in different ways (Allott, 1988). One way is exemplified by expressions such as 'Those spots mean measles.' Grice calls this natural meaning. The other use he finds in expressions such as 'Those three rings on the bell mean that the bus is full.' This is non-natural meaning.

Topic – 207 Stephen C. Levinson

Levinson describes politeness phenomena in the use of language which is largely responsible for the proliferation of cross linguistic and cross cultural studies of politeness in speech. Levinson's theory describes two aspects of people's face: negative face and positive face. He introduces a term Face Threatening Acts (FTAs). Positive politeness is directed towards the addressee's positive face and negative politeness is directed towards the negative face of the addressee (Allott, 1988). Levinson argued that a distinction between utterance-type and utterance-token meaning is necessary to capture the facts about implicatures.

Lesson 41

INTERACTIONAL CONSTRUCTION OF IDENTITY

Topic – 209 Introduction

The categories used to describe the features of human beings, such as ethnicity, race, gender, socioeconomic background/class, are abstractions. Those abstractions become real or transparent as they are enacted through our choices of clothing, hairstyles, posture, lifestyles, and most assuredly how we use language. Word choice, prosody, tone of voice, degree of grammatical complexity, and interactional routines are components of socio-pragmatics. Linguistic strategies and cues convey and build identities of speakers/listeners as they —perform identity.

Topic – 211 Action Theory

{ENG508 Short Notes from Lesson(23-43)}

when the frame for a joint activity is not shared, then the participants even at a supermarket may not be able to achieve their goals. Coordination problems at the level of local joint actions are multiple, the primary one being —what the speakers mean and what their addressees understand them to mean (Clark, 1996: 73).

Topic – 212 Studies of Identities

One study that clearly demonstrates the ways in which participants in local talk-in-interaction enact their identities in the flow of playing a game at a senior citizens' program was carried out by Cashman (2005).

Rather than follow the more traditional or classic view of code switching. It is based on language code change as a reflection of the social structure of the urban Latino community. Cashman observed members of the community as they did —identity work, embedded in the social activity of playing *lotería*, a Mexican version of bingo that uses pictures rather than numbers or letters. The players of the *Lotería* had varying degrees of Spanish - English bilingual proficiency and they used language preference and alternation as a resource to do identity work.

Topic – 213 Occasioning Identity Work

Identity becomes transparent in the course of conversations, where an unexpected intonation contour provides a clue that the speaker is, despite fluency in English, originally from Italy, and this background information is a feature of that person's identity. Identity also becomes noticeable in the course of a discussion of content where an individual contributes information about Middle Eastern food preparation.

Lesson 42: LANGUAGE, GENDER, AND POWER

Topic – 215 Enactment of Gender in Language Use

The term —gendered clearly communicates the notion that gender is an action, something that one does, i.e. gender in the media, in the workplace, in religion, and in the family (LoCastro, 2012). To understand 'Gender' we need to consider that how children acquire an awareness of gender at very early ages.

Female children learn that pink is the color for girls. This starts as nonverbal cues of femaleness translates into differences in language use. Tannen (1993) claimed that, though there is no question that dominance by men over women exists, it is not possible to attribute the cause of the enactment of dominance to specific linguistic realizations. For example, indirectness, interruptions, or topic shifts (LoCastro, 2012).

Topic – 216 Western Perspectives

LoCastro (2012) highlights a speech variable found in an individual's speech in Australia and the U.K., i.e. women may drop their h's. The practice of h-dropping occurs in everyday words like 'ouse (house), 'ome (home), Trudgill (1972) and Milroy (1989).

In Western cultural contexts, stereotypically, it is men who are viewed as being more likely to dominate in mixed-gender groupings. Or sometimes, female participants exclude men from the conversation by selecting topics such as 'choices of dresses, personal feelings or house chores'. In Western Societies, researches have been conducted to differentiate between male/female behavior, verbal and non-verbal both. Historically, in efforts to describe and explain the discrimination against women in U.S. society, one focus was women's use of language. One more

{ENG508 Short Notes from Lesson(23-43)}

perspective is, women in the U.S. experience the binary choice between being addressed by either Mrs. or Miss plus their family name.

Non-Western Perspectives

In Japan, women use ‘Respectful Prefixes’ known as honorifics which are based on ‘politeness’ in a formal context (Maynard, 1990). According to Ide and Inoue (1991), Japanese women of higher social status tend to use more elaborated honorifics to signal beauty, grace, and dignity. Ide (2005) uses the term —beautification honorifics, a form of gendered language use that, in her view, does not correlate with dominance in Japan.

It has been observed in India and Pakistan that English is used as a dominant language in the elite class which shows that this class is influenced by western culture. Errington states that language is sometimes —gender-neutral in Asian Culture. Examples of the gender-neutral features are: The lack of gender marking with articles, or morphemes on nouns; specific lexemes like —human or —person are not marked for feminine or masculine. The local greeting is how many —older and younger siblings do you have rather than how many —brothers and sisters do you have (Atkinson and Errington 1990).

Topic – 217 Power: Language and Gender

Social constructionism is based on the assumption that gender, like identity, is not a fixed characteristic of human beings.

Topic – 218 Working of Language and Power: Political Discourse

Political discourse is a genre of language in use which is often viewed as a transparent vehicle used by politicians to preserve or to seek to create their own power. Speech of president of a country is supposed to maintain the face of the speaker as the main governmental leader of the country (LoCastro 2012). The study of language and power also looks at how linguistic structures create reality, a reality that maintains and extends power relations in a society.

Lesson 43

CLASSROOM PRAGMATIC DEVELOPMENT

Topic – 222 Can Pragmatic Competence be Taught or Learnt in Instructed Contexts?

LoCastro (2012) has focused on instructed development, that is, in classrooms, or other contexts organized for learning, as the acquisition of pragmatic competence in a naturalistic environment. Kasper and Rose (2002) argue that L2 pragmatics can be taught.

According to Kanagy (1999), the children in Japan are taught the cultural practices and the pragmatic meanings of the routines in classrooms including nonverbal behaviors. Children cannot learn to say —thank you without an adult in their immediate environment instructing them about the phrase and its context of use.

Local teachers can teach pragmatic competence in a better way because, sometimes, native speakers of the target language may shy away from making learners aware of miscommunication due to local sociocultural influences (Kasper and Rose, 2002).

Topic – 223 Difficulty in the Development of Pragmatic Competence in a Classroom

McKay (2002) lists three reasons the ELT field has had to revise its goals and teachers their practices:

{ENG508 Short Notes from Lesson(23-43)}

- ❖ Learners of English as a second/foreign language do not have to also learn the cultures of native speakers of English;
- ❖ English is not —ownedl by native speakers only; and
- ❖ The main goal of learners is to communicate their own ideas and cultures to others, not become native speakers of the language.

Topic – 224 What can be Done to Facilitate the Teaching and Learning of Pragmatic Competence?

—Awareness Raisingl among teachers because there is a lack of teacher training programs. Teachers should be properly guided about the selection of material, the choice of activities and the importance of pragmatic competence. In the next step, language teachers would build the awareness in the learners. For example, the skills in the primary language and culture to help them become more capable of understanding and enacting pragmatic meanings in the target language.